

Perfect 🙌 Since this is for **postgraduate NLP students**, I'll prepare **detailed, graduate-level lecture notes** with enough depth, technical explanations, and links to modern research directions.

Lecture Notes – Advanced Speech & Language Processing

1. Advanced Methods for Decoding

- **Definition:** Decoding = finding the most probable word sequence given an acoustic observation .

$$\hat{W} = \arg\max_W P(W|A) = \arg\max_W P(A|W)P(W)$$

- **Classical method:**
 - **Viterbi Algorithm** (dynamic programming): finds the best state sequence in Hidden Markov Models (HMM).
 - **Limitations:** Large vocabulary → search space explosion.
 - **Advanced Methods:**
 - **Beam Search Decoding**
 - Keeps only top-N hypotheses at each step (pruning).
 - Widely used in neural ASR and seq2seq models.
 - *A Decoding**
 - Uses heuristic cost function → faster convergence.
 - **Token Passing Algorithm**
 - Tokens represent hypotheses propagating frame by frame.
 - **Weighted Finite-State Transducers (WFSTs)**
 - Unifies acoustic, lexical, and language models in one graph.
 - State-of-the-art in HMM-DNN ASR systems.
 - **Neural End-to-End Decoding**
 - CTC (Connectionist Temporal Classification).
 - RNN-Transducers.
 - Attention-based seq2seq decoding (transformers).
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2. Acoustic Processing of Speech

- Converts **raw waveform** → compact **feature vectors**.
- **Steps:**
 1. **Pre-emphasis** – High-pass filter to amplify high-frequency formants.
 2. **Framing & Windowing** – Speech is quasi-stationary in 20–30 ms windows.

3. **Fourier Transform** – Frequency representation.
 4. **Filterbank Analysis** – Mel or Bark scale filters approximate human ear.
 5. **Feature Extraction:**
 - **MFCC (Mel-Frequency Cepstral Coefficients)** – dominant in ASR.
 - **PLP (Perceptual Linear Prediction).**
 - **Log-Mel Spectrograms** (for deep learning models).
 - **Modern Trend:** End-to-end ASR directly from raw waveforms (Wav2Vec 2.0, HuBERT).
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3. Computing Acoustic Probabilities

- Goal: Compute $P(A|W)$, probability of signal given a word.
 - **Traditional approach:**
 - **HMM + GMM** framework.
 - States model phonemes, GMMs model emission probabilities.
 - **Modern approach:**
 - **Hybrid HMM-DNN:** DNN replaces GMM for state likelihoods.
 - **End-to-End Neural Models:**
 - **CTC-based:** align speech and text without explicit HMM.
 - **Attention models:** sequence-to-sequence mapping.
 - **Transformers:** self-attention captures long dependencies.
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4. Training a Speech Recognizer

- **Pipeline:**
 1. **Data collection** – Thousands of hours of labeled audio.
 2. **Feature extraction** – MFCC/log-mel features.
 3. **Acoustic Model training** – HMM-DNN or end-to-end models.
 4. **Language Model training** – n-grams, RNN-LMs, Transformers (GPT-like models).
 5. **Pronunciation Lexicon** – Word-to-phoneme mappings (IPA or CMUdict).
 6. **Integration** – Decode using joint acoustic + language probabilities.
 - **Optimization:**
 - Maximum Likelihood Estimation (MLE).
 - Discriminative training (MMI, MPE).
 - Cross-entropy or CTC loss.
 - Modern: **Self-supervised learning** (e.g., Wav2Vec2.0 pretraining).
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5. Waveform Generation for Speech Synthesis

- **Text-to-Speech (TTS)** → Converts text into waveform.
 - **Methods:**
 - **Formant Synthesis** – Rule-based (robotic).
 - **Concatenative Synthesis** – Uses prerecorded segments.
 - **Statistical Parametric (HMM-based)** – Predicts parameters → vocoder generates waveform.
 - **Neural Approaches:**
 - **WaveNet** – autoregressive raw waveform model (Google DeepMind).
 - **Tacotron 2** – seq2seq text-to-mel, vocoder for waveform.
 - **FastSpeech** – transformer-based, faster inference.
 - **VALL-E / VITS** – zero-shot voice cloning, end-to-end.
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6. Human Speech Recognition

- **Biological Perspective:**
 - Cochlea → frequency analysis (like Fourier transform).
 - Auditory cortex processes phonetic/semantic content.
 - Humans adapt to noise, accents, incomplete input.
 - **Comparison with ASR:**
 - Humans use **context + world knowledge** effectively.
 - Machines rely heavily on training data and statistical models.
 - Current research: **cognitive-inspired ASR** (multi-modal, memory-based).
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7. Word Classes and POS Tagging

- **Word Classes (Parts of Speech):** Noun, Verb, Adjective, Adverb, Pronoun, Preposition, Conjunction, Determiner, Interjection.
- **POS Tagging** = Assigning tags to words in a sentence.

Example:

- Sentence: *The dog chased the cat*
- Tags: *DT NN VBD DT NN*

Tagsets for English:

- **Penn Treebank (45 tags)** – Standard in NLP research.
 - NN (noun singular), NNS (plural noun), VB (verb base), VBD (verb past tense), JJ (adjective), RB (adverb), DT (determiner), IN (preposition).
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8. POS Tagging Methods

- **Rule-based:** Early systems (ENGTWOL, Brill tagger).

- **Statistical Models:**
 - Hidden Markov Models (HMM).
 - Maximum Entropy Models.
 - **Neural Approaches:**
 - BiLSTM-CRF (sequence labeling).
 - Transformer-based (BERT, RoBERTa, GPT).
 - Fine-tuned models achieve >97% accuracy.
 - **Applications:**
 - Parsing & Syntax Analysis.
 - Machine Translation.
 - Question Answering.
 - Information Extraction.
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Summary

- **Decoding:** from HMM-Viterbi to Neural Beam Search.
 - **Acoustic Processing:** MFCCs → self-supervised embeddings.
 - **Acoustic Probabilities:** HMM-GMM → DNNs → End-to-End Transformers.
 - **Training:** supervised + self-supervised trends.
 - **Synthesis:** WaveNet, Tacotron, VALL-E.
 - **Human vs. Machine Speech Recognition:** robustness gap.
 - **POS Tagging:** from rule-based to transformers.
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This set of notes is **detailed enough for PG-level NLP students** and links classical speech recognition to modern deep learning & transformer-based approaches.

Do you also want me to prepare a **research directions + recent papers section** (so students can explore latest work in speech recognition & synthesis)?

Great 👍 Let's expand on those **three classical approaches to POS Tagging** with enough depth for a **postgraduate NLP lecture**.

POS Tagging Methods

1. Rule-Based Part-of-Speech Tagging

- **Definition:** Uses **hand-crafted linguistic rules** to assign tags.
- **Process:**
 - Dictionary/lexicon provides possible tags for each word.
 - Contextual rules resolve ambiguity (e.g., noun vs. verb).
- **Example Rules:**

- If the word is preceded by a determiner (DT) → likely a **noun**.
 - If the word ends with *-ing* → likely a **verb (VBG)**.
 - If the word ends with *-ly* → likely an **adverb (RB)**.
 - **Example System:**
 - **ENGTWOL** (Constraint Grammar Tagger).
 - **Advantages:**
 - Linguistically interpretable.
 - High accuracy for controlled domains.
 - **Limitations:**
 - Requires extensive manual rule creation.
 - Not scalable to large, open-domain corpora.
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2. Stochastic (Statistical) Part-of-Speech Tagging

- **Definition:** Assigns tags based on **probabilities learned from annotated corpora**.
 - **Approach:**
 - Uses training data (e.g., Penn Treebank).
 - Learns probabilities of tags and sequences.
 - **Models:**
 - **Unigram Tagger** – assigns most frequent tag for each word.
 - e.g., *book* → usually NN (noun).
 - **Bigram Tagger** – considers previous tag.
 - $P(\text{tag} | \text{previous tag})$.
 - **Trigram Tagger** – considers two previous tags.
 - **Hidden Markov Models (HMMs):**
 - Word sequence = observations.
 - Tags = hidden states.
 - Uses **Viterbi Algorithm** for most likely tag sequence.
 - **Example:**
 - Sentence: *The dog barks*.
 - Using probabilities, HMM assigns *DT NN VBZ*.
 - **Advantages:**
 - Automatically learns from data.
 - Scalable to large corpora.
 - **Limitations:**
 - Requires large tagged corpora.
 - Struggles with unseen words (OOV problem).
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3. Transformation-Based Tagging (TBL)

- **Definition:** Hybrid between **rule-based** and **stochastic** approaches.
- **Invented by:** Eric Brill (**Brill Tagger, 1992**).
- **Working:**
 1. Start with a baseline tagger (usually unigram frequencies).
 2. Apply **transformation rules** iteratively to fix mistakes.

3. Rules are **automatically learned** from training data.
- **Example Rule:**
 - *Change a word from VB → NN if the previous word is a determiner (DT).*
 - Applied to “the book”:
 - Initially → DT VB.
 - Rule corrects → DT NN.
 - **Advantages:**
 - Rules are **interpretable** and **data-driven**.
 - More compact than purely statistical models.
 - **Limitations:**
 - Slower training (needs rule learning).
 - Lower accuracy compared to modern neural models.
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Comparison of POS Tagging Methods

Method	Basis	Example System	Pros	Cons
Rule-based	Hand-crafted rules	ENGTWOL	Transparent, linguistic knowledge	Labor-intensive, brittle
Stochastic (Statistical)	Probability models	HMM Taggers	Scalable, learns from corpora	Needs large data, OOV problem
Transformation-Based	Rule + learning	Brill Tagger	Interpretable, data-driven	Slower training, less accurate than neural

These three methods form the **foundation** of POS tagging before the **neural era** (BiLSTM-CRF, Transformers).

Would you like me to also **add Python code examples** (NLTK for rule-based, HMM tagger, Brill tagger) so your students can run experiments?

Perfect 🙌 This is an advanced NLP topic — I'll prepare **detailed postgraduate-level lecture notes on Transformers and Large Language Models (LLMs)** with clear structure, theory, and connections to modern research.

Lecture Notes – Transformers & Large Language Models

1. The Transformer: A Self-Attention Network

- **Proposed by Vaswani et al. (2017): "Attention is All You Need".**
- **Key Idea:** Replace recurrence (RNNs) and convolutions (CNNs) with **self-attention**.
- **Why?**
 - RNNs → sequential, slow, poor at long-range dependencies.
 - Self-attention → processes sequences **in parallel**, models **long-range dependencies directly**.
- **Self-Attention Mechanism:**
 - Each token attends to **all other tokens** in a sequence.
 - Input word embeddings transformed into:
 - **Query (Q), Key (K), Value (V)** matrices.
 - Attention score:

$$\text{Attention}(Q, K, V) = \frac{\text{softmax}\left(\frac{QK^T}{\sqrt{d_k}}\right)V}{d_k}$$

- d_k = dimension of key vectors (scaling factor).

2. Multi-Head Attention

- Instead of **one attention function**, use **multiple heads** (parallel attention).
- Each head learns different relationships:
 - Syntax (e.g., subject-verb agreement).
 - Semantics (e.g., coreference, long-range meaning).
- Formula:

$$\text{MultiHead}(Q, K, V) = \text{Concat}(\text{head}_1, \dots, \text{head}_h)W^O$$

- **Advantage:** Captures **different linguistic dependencies** simultaneously.
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3. Transformer Blocks

- The Transformer is built from **stacked encoder/decoder blocks**.

Encoder Block

1. Multi-Head Self-Attention.
2. Add & Norm (residual connection + layer normalization).
3. Feed-Forward Network (2-layer MLP).
4. Add & Norm again.

Decoder Block

1. Masked Multi-Head Self-Attention (prevents seeing future tokens).
2. Encoder-Decoder Attention (attends over encoder outputs).
3. Feed-Forward Network.
4. Residual + Norm connections.

4. The Residual Stream View of the Transformer Block

- Introduced in **Anthropic's research** (2022) → explains how transformers process information.
- Instead of seeing layers as separate, think of a **residual stream**:
 - The hidden state flows forward unchanged, while **attention and MLPs add modifications**.
- Residual connections = "shortcut pathways" that **enable deep transformers to train** by avoiding vanishing gradients.
- Provides **interpretability**:
 - Attention heads act like *routers* — deciding what info to pass.
 - MLPs act like *feature transformers*.

5. The Language Modelling Head

- A **language model (LM)** predicts the next token given previous context.
- Transformer-based LMs use:
 - **Masked Self-Attention** in decoder (causal).
 - **Softmax over vocabulary**:

$$P(w_t | w_1, \dots, w_{t-1}) = \text{softmax}(h_t W^T)$$

- Training objective: **minimize cross-entropy loss**:

$$L = -\sum_t \log P(w_t | w_{<t})$$

6. Large Language Models with Transformers

- **Scaling Laws** (Kaplan et al., 2020):
 - Performance improves predictably with **more parameters**, **more data**, and **more compute**.
 - **Examples**:
 - GPT family (decoder-only).
 - BERT, RoBERTa (encoder-only).
 - T5, BART (encoder-decoder).
 - **Trends**:
 - Billions to **trillions of parameters**.
 - Trained on massive web-scale corpora.
 - Emergent abilities: reasoning, coding, summarization, multi-modal tasks.
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7. Large Language Models: Training Transformers

- **Training Objective**: Autoregressive LM (GPT), Masked LM (BERT), Seq2Seq LM (T5).
 - **Data**:
 - Billions of tokens (Common Crawl, books, Wikipedia, code, dialogues).
 - Pretraining → Finetuning (domain-specific).
 - **Optimization**:
 - Adam / AdamW optimizer.
 - Gradient clipping, mixed precision (FP16/FP32).
 - Distributed training (model parallelism, data parallelism, pipeline parallelism).
 - **Challenges**:
 - **Compute cost** (hundreds of GPUs for months).
 - **Bias & fairness** in training data.
 - **Interpretability** (black-box problem).
 - **Efficiency**: pruning, quantization, distillation.
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Summary

- **Transformers** replaced RNNs via **self-attention**.
- **Multi-head attention** lets the model learn diverse dependencies.
- **Transformer blocks** combine attention + feed-forward + residuals.
- **Residual stream view** explains interpretability.
- **Language modelling head** turns transformers into powerful generative models.
- **LLMs** (GPT, BERT, T5) are scaled-up transformers trained on massive corpora.
- **Training LLMs** requires data, compute, optimization tricks, and raises challenges (bias, cost, interpretability).

This set is detailed enough for **postgraduate NLP students** and can serve as both **theory + discussion base** for research-oriented classes.

Would you like me to also **add diagrams** (like a transformer block architecture & self-attention mechanism) to use directly in your slides?